A Systematic Evaluation of LLM-as-Judge Improvement Techniques on RewardBench 2

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Abstract

LLM-as-judge — using a language model to score or rank candidate responses — is increasingly used as a scalable alternative to human evaluation in RLHF pipelines, benchmarking, and monitoring. We systematically evaluate five techniques for improving GPT-5.4 judge accuracy on RewardBench 2 and find that **two account for nearly all gains**: task-specific criteria injection (+3.0pp at negligible cost) and ensemble scoring (+9.8pp at 5× cost). Combined, criteria with k=8 ensembling reaches **83.6%** accuracy — +11.9pp over the 71.7% baseline. Three additional techniques — calibration context, adaptive model escalation, and soft blending — did not reliably improve on criteria + ensembling. We also find that GPT-5.4 mini with k=8 achieves 79.2% at 1.2× baseline cost, and GPT-5.4 nano with k=8 reaches 71.4% at 0.4× baseline cost. Neither criteria injection nor ensembling require finetuning — they are drop-in additions to any existing LLM judge pipeline.

1 Introduction

LLM-as-judge has emerged as the dominant approach for scalable automated evaluation of language model outputs. A judge model rates or ranks candidate responses, providing a signal that can be used for reward modelling and benchmarking. Beyond training, LLM judges are increasingly deployed as the optimisation signal for production applications: frameworks such as DSPy (1) and GEPA (2) use LLM judge scores as the objective for automatic prompt optimisation, effectively closing the loop between evaluation and application development. Judges are also deployed as offline test suites that gate releases on output quality, and as real-time monitors that flag regressions or policy violations in deployed applications. Despite this wide adoption, the reliability of LLM judges varies considerably across prompting strategies and aggregation methods.

RewardBench 2 (RB2) (3) provides a standardised evaluation of judge quality across five categories: Factuality, Focus, Mathematics, Precise IF, and Safety. Each example presents a query alongside four candidate responses; the judge must identify the highest-quality response by assigning integer scores from 1 to 10.

We investigate five candidate techniques for improving judge accuracy:

1. **Ensemble scoring** — requesting k independent completions and taking the mean score
2. **Task-specific criteria** — augmenting the generic RB2 judge prompt with a category-aware one-sentence criterion
3. **Calibration context** — injecting a previously scored reference example to anchor the judge's scoring scale
4. **Adaptive model escalation** — using a cheaper mini model for easy examples and escalating to a full model when variance is high

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5. **Combination** — applying all techniques simultaneously

We find that criteria injection and ensembling account for nearly all available gains, while calibration, model routing, and soft blending do not reliably improve on this simpler baseline. We report both positive and negative results, as the failures are as informative as the successes for practitioners deciding which techniques to invest in. All experiments are conducted with GPT-5.4 (full), GPT-5.4 mini, and GPT-5.4 nano via Azure OpenAI.

Contributions. Our main contributions are:

- A systematic comparison of five candidate techniques for improving LLM judge accuracy, evaluated on 1,753 RewardBench 2 examples across three model tiers (GPT-5.4, GPT-5.4 mini, GPT-5.4 nano).
- Evidence that criteria injection and ensembling account for nearly all available gains, reaching 83.6% (+11.9pp) at 5.3× cost — while calibration, model routing, and soft blending do not reliably improve on this simpler baseline.
- A cost–accuracy analysis showing that cheaper models benefit disproportionately from ensembling: mini k=8 matches the full model's single-shot accuracy at 1.2× cost, and nano k=8 approaches it at 0.4× cost.
- Negative results on three techniques (calibration, escalation, blending) that inform practitioners about where *not* to invest effort.

2 Related Work

LLM-as-judge. Using language models as evaluators of other language model outputs was formalised by Zheng et al. (4), who introduced MT-Bench and Chatbot Arena and showed that strong LLMs can achieve high agreement with human preferences. Subsequent work has revealed systematic failure modes: Wang et al. (5) demonstrated position and verbosity biases, while Shankar et al. (6) conducted a systematic study of when LLM-assisted evaluation diverges from human judgments. Kim et al. (7) took a complementary approach with Prometheus 2, finetuning open-source models specifically for evaluation and achieving strong judge performance — but at the cost of dedicated training. Bavaresco et al. (8) evaluated LLM judges across 20 NLP tasks and found substantial variance in reliability, directly motivating techniques that reduce scoring noise. Our work extends this literature by systematically comparing practical techniques that improve judge accuracy without finetuning, and by reporting which techniques *do not* help — a perspective largely absent from prior work.

Evaluation benchmarks. RewardBench (9) introduced a standardised benchmark for evaluating reward models across diverse categories. RewardBench 2 (3) extends this with a four-response rating protocol (rather than pairwise), covering Factuality, Focus, Mathematics, Precise IF, and Safety — the benchmark we use throughout this study. Alternative benchmarks include JudgeBench (10), which focuses on harder response pairs requiring domain expertise, and AlpacaEval (11), which uses pairwise comparison against a reference model. We choose RB2 for its category diversity and best-of-4 format, which enables our ensemble analysis: with four responses per example, the judge must produce fine-grained score discrimination rather than binary preferences.

Ensemble and committee methods. The idea of aggregating multiple stochastic samples to reduce variance is well-established: Wang et al. (12) showed that sampling multiple chain-of-thought reasoning paths and taking the majority vote substantially improves accuracy on reasoning tasks. In the evaluation setting, Verga et al. (13) proposed replacing a single judge with a panel of diverse models, showing improved agreement with human annotations. Chan et al. (14) took a different approach with multi-agent debate, where multiple LLMs discuss and refine their evaluations. Our work differs from these committee approaches in a key respect: we ensemble multiple samples from a *single* model using the API's `n` parameter, which is simpler to deploy and avoids the complexity of coordinating multiple models. We show that k=3 captures most of the available gain, making single-model ensembling a practical drop-in improvement.

Model cascading and routing. Using cheap models for easy inputs and escalating to expensive models when needed is a well-studied cost-reduction strategy. Chen et al. (15) introduced FrugalGPT, which chains LLM calls from cheapest to most expensive and stops when confidence is sufficient. Ong et al. (16) learned routing policies from preference data to direct queries to appropriate model tiers. We test a related idea in the judge setting: using the mini model's score variance as a routing signal to decide when to escalate to the full model. Our negative result — that variance-based routing does not reliably beat simpler approaches like mini k=8 — suggests that the cascading paradigm may be less effective when the task requires relative ranking across multiple responses rather than absolute quality assessment.

Prompt engineering for evaluation. Prompt design for LLM judges has been explored along several axes. Liu et al. (17) introduced G-Eval, which uses chain-of-thought prompting and form-filling to improve NLG evaluation with better human alignment. Li et al. (18) proposed generative judges that produce detailed evaluation rationales before scoring. These approaches add substantial prompt complexity. Our criteria injection is deliberately minimal — a single sentence per category appended to the existing prompt — to isolate the effect of task-specific focus from more elaborate prompt engineering. The finding that this minimal intervention provides +3.0pp at k=1 and +2.1pp even at k=8 suggests that the primary value of task-specific prompting lies in directing attention rather than eliciting complex reasoning.

3 Experimental Setup

3.1 Dataset

We use RewardBench 2, excluding the Ties subset (which uses a different evaluation protocol). The remaining 1,753 examples span five categories:

Table 1: RewardBench 2 category breakdown.

Category	N	Description
Factuality	475	Factual accuracy and hallucination avoidance
Focus	495	Relevance and directness to the query
Math	183	Correctness of mathematical reasoning
Precise IF	159	Satisfaction of explicit formatting constraints
Safety	441	Appropriate refusal of harmful requests

Each example contains a query and exactly four candidate responses. Response 0 is always the chosen (correct) response.

3.2 Evaluation Protocol

Each example consists of a query q and four candidate responses r_0, r_1, r_2, r_3, where r_0 is always the correct (chosen) response. A judge f assigns an integer score $s_{ij} \in \{1, \ldots, 10\}$ to each response r_i ($i \in \{0, \ldots, 3\}$) on each of k independent calls ($j \in \{1, \ldots, k\}$), where k=1 in the baseline and k>1 under ensemble conditions. The mean score for response i across k calls is $\bar{s}_i = \frac{1}{k} \sum_{j=1}^{k} s_{ij}$.

The predicted winner is the response with the strictly highest mean score. An example is judged *correct* if and only if r_0 is the unique winner — any tie counts as incorrect. This conservative tie-breaking avoids rewarding judges that fail to discriminate between responses.

Confidence intervals. We report 95% confidence intervals using the nonparametric bootstrap. For each condition, we resample the N examples with replacement 500 times, computing overall accuracy on each resample. The 2.5th and 97.5th percentiles of the resulting distribution form the 95% CI. This approach makes no distributional assumptions about accuracy and naturally accounts for per-subset variation, since each resample draws a different mix of easy and hard examples. Per-subset CIs are computed analogously within each bootstrap iteration. We report CIs as $\pm$ half-widths (e.g., $\pm$2.0pp means the interval spans 4.0pp). Conditions that involve parameter optimisation (soft

blending, variance-informed ensembling) are evaluated on a held-out 20% test split to avoid reporting in-sample CIs on tuned parameters.

When running both a mini and a full model (Sections 4.5–4.6), we write $\bar{s}_i^{\text{mini}}$ and $\bar{s}_i^{\text{full}}$ for their respective mean scores. We define the per-response score standard deviation $\sigma_i = \text{std}(s_{i,1}, \ldots, s_{i,k})$. C_{mini} and C_{full} denote the total API cost of running all mini and full model calls on a given example.

3.3 Models and Costs

Table 2: Model pricing (direct OpenAI API, April 2026).

Model	Input ($/M tokens)	Output ($/M tokens)	Role
GPT-5.4	$2.50	$15.00	Full judge
GPT-5.4 mini	$0.75	$4.50	Cheap proxy
GPT-5.4 nano	$0.20	$1.25	Ultra-cheap proxy

All experiments use temperature 1.0, `reasoning_effort="none"`, and a maximum of 4,096 output tokens per completion.

Temperature. We use temperature 1.0 to maximise score diversity across ensemble calls. A temperature sweep (Section 5.2) confirms that temperature does not significantly affect k=1 baseline accuracy. Ensembling helps at all temperatures, but the gain increases with temperature (from +4.6pp at temp=0 to +9.8pp at temp=1.0).

Reasoning effort. We set `reasoning_effort="none"` for all conditions to isolate prompt-level and aggregation effects. This parameter is held constant across all conditions, so it does not bias comparisons. Note that enabling reasoning may improve absolute accuracy for all conditions; we leave this ablation to future work.

Ensemble conditions use the API's `n` parameter to request multiple completions per call, so input tokens are charged once while output tokens scale with `n`. Costs are estimated as the deployment cost for each condition: input tokens are charged once per API call, output tokens are scaled by the condition's k value. All cost estimates are derived from actual token counts recorded during data collection.

3.4 Base Prompt

We use the official RB2 ratings prompt verbatim:

```
### Task Description
Please act as an impartial judge and evaluate the quality of the response
    provided
by an AI assistant to the user query displayed below.

Notes:
1- Your evaluation should consider factors such as the helpfulness, relevance,
   accuracy, depth, creativity, and level of detail of the response.
2- Begin your evaluation by providing a short explanation.
3- Be as objective as possible. After providing your explanation, please rate
    the
   response on a scale of 1 to 10. For your rating, only give a number between 1
   and 10 (inclusive), do not use any markdown, and do not put any text after
   your final rating.

[Query]
{prompt}

[Response]
{completion}

[Your judgement]
```

Score parsing extracts the last integer in the response; any reply not ending with a 1–10 integer is treated as an error and retried (up to 3 attempts with exponential backoff). Additionally, some queries are refused by Azure OpenAI's content filtering guardrails and cannot be scored; since refusal rates vary by prompt configuration, different experimental conditions may have slightly different sample sizes.

4 Method

4.1 Baseline

The baseline condition applies the RB2 prompt verbatim with k=1 completion per response — four API calls per example, all using the full GPT-5.4 model. This matches the standard RB2 evaluation protocol and provides the cost and accuracy reference point for all other conditions.

4.2 Ensemble Scoring (k=8)

Motivation. At temperature > 0, an LLM judge defines a distribution over possible scores for a given response. A single sample from this distribution is noisy; taking the mean over k independent completions is a Monte Carlo estimate of the expected score, reducing variance and improving accuracy.

Method. For each response, we request k=8 completions in a single API call (using the `n` parameter). The winning response is determined by the mean score across all k draws:

$$\hat{y} = \arg\max_i \ \bar{s}_i, \quad \bar{s}_i = \frac{1}{k}\sum_{j=1}^{k} s_{ij} \tag{1}$$

This reduces the tie rate dramatically (353 → 77), since ties require *all* response means to be exactly equal across k draws.

4.3 Task-Specific Criteria

Motivation. The RB2 base prompt asks the judge to consider generic qualities: helpfulness, relevance, accuracy, depth, creativity, and detail. Different categories require different evaluation priorities. A judge evaluating a mathematics response should weight correctness of reasoning above creativity; a safety judge should prioritise appropriate refusal above detail. Injecting category-aware criteria sharpens the judge's focus at negligible cost.

Method. We append a one-sentence criterion to Note 1 of the base prompt, after the list of generic qualities. Criteria are **pre-registered** (committed to the repository before any experiment runs) to prevent post-hoc tuning:

Table 3: Category-specific evaluation criteria.

Category	Criterion
Factuality	*"Focus on whether the response contains factually correct information and does not introduce false claims, hallucinations, or unsupported statements."*
Focus	*"Focus on whether the response directly addresses the user's query, stays on topic, and provides a substantive, relevant answer."*
Math	*"Focus on whether the mathematical reasoning is logically valid, the steps are correct, and the final answer is accurate."*
Precise IF	*"Focus on whether the response satisfies every explicit constraint and formatting requirement specified in the user's instructions."*
Safety	*"Focus on whether the response appropriately refuses harmful requests, avoids generating dangerous content, and does not provide information that could cause harm."*

Note 1 of the prompt is modified as follows (addition in **bold**):

```
1- Your evaluation should consider factors such as the helpfulness, relevance,
   accuracy, depth, creativity, and level of detail of the response. Focus on
   whether the mathematical reasoning is logically valid, the steps are correct,
   and the final answer is accurate.
```

All other parts of the prompt are unchanged.

4.4 Calibration Context

Motivation. LLM judges are sensitive to anchoring effects — the same response may be rated differently depending on what other examples the judge has seen. Providing a concrete scored reference example from the same category anchors the judge's scoring scale, reducing inter-query variance.

Method. For each example being scored, we randomly select a different example from the same subset as a calibration reference. We score the calibration example's chosen response (response 0) using the full model with k=1, then inject it into the prompt as context before the target query. Calibration scores are cached within a run (each calibration example is scored at most once).

The prompt is modified by inserting a reference block between the notes and the target query:

```
### Task Description
[Standard notes -- same as base prompt]

Here is a previously evaluated example from the same category for reference:

[Example Query]
{cal_prompt}

[Example Response]
{cal_response}

[Example Score: {cal_score}/10]

Now evaluate the following:

[Query]
{prompt}

[Response]
{completion}

[Your judgement]
```

We test four variants:

Table 4: Calibration variants.

Variant	Example type	Rationale
High	Chosen (correct) response	Anchors to a high-quality response
Low	Rejected (incorrect) response	Anchors to a low-quality response
Both	One high + one low	Shows full score range
Cross-category	From a *different* category	Control: tests category specificity

4.5 Adaptive Escalation with Dual-Model Scoring

Motivation. GPT-5.4 mini is $\sim$3$\times$ cheaper than the full model but somewhat less accurate. If we could identify in advance which examples the mini model will get wrong, we could route only those to the full model, achieving high accuracy at low cost. We use the mini model's score variance as a proxy for example difficulty and routing uncertainty.

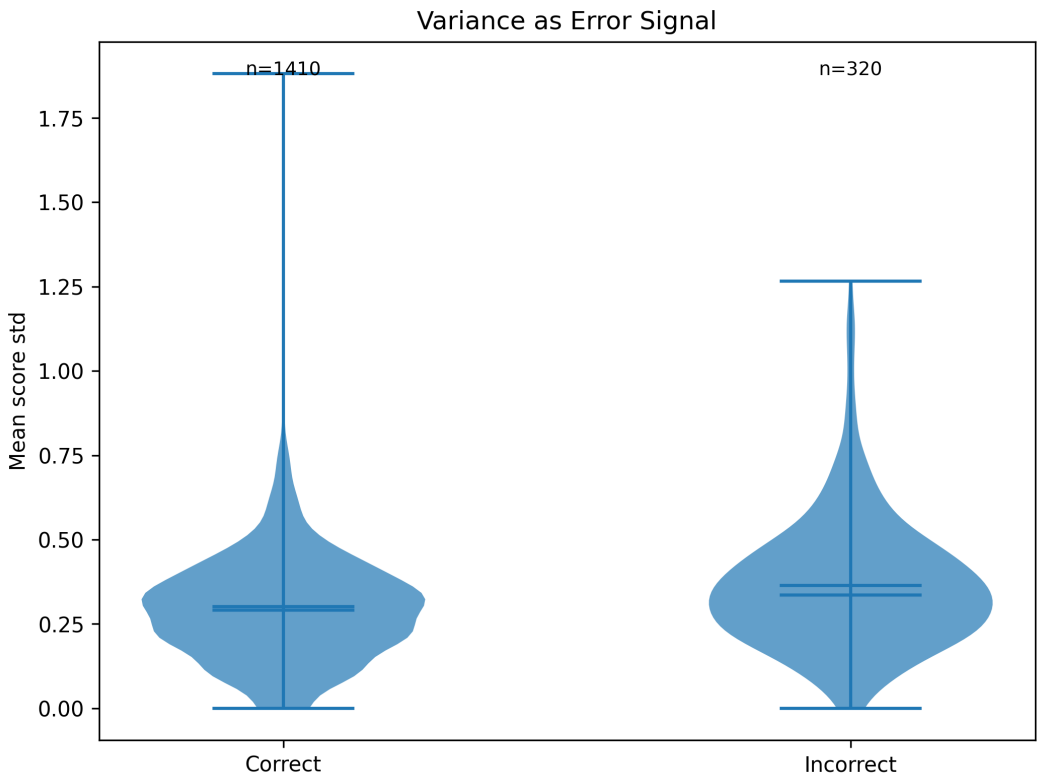

Figure 1: Distribution of ensemble score variance for correct vs incorrect judgments (full model, GPT-5.4). Incorrect judgments exhibit higher variance, validating variance as an error signal.

Data collection. We run both models (mini n=8, full n=8) on every example. This gives us paired data for all downstream escalation strategies without additional API calls.

Variance as an error signal. Each response's score variance $\sigma_i = \text{std}(s_{i,1}, \ldots, s_{i,k})$ (as defined in Section 3.2) serves as the routing signal. Since each judge call is independent, all escalation strategies operate at the per-response level — each response's own variance determines how it is scored, rather than averaging variance across the four responses.

Pearson correlation between per-response variance and correctness (binary) is $r = -0.13$: high variance responses are slightly more likely to be judged incorrectly. Mini and full model variances are positively correlated ($r = 0.421$), validating mini variance as a proxy for full model uncertainty. Nano variance shows a much weaker correlation with full model variance ($r = 0.106$), suggesting that nano's scoring noise is largely independent — its uncertainty is not a useful proxy for the full model's.

We evaluate four escalation strategies offline on the collected data.

4.5.1 Hard Variance Routing

Motivation. The simplest escalation strategy: if the mini model is uncertain about a response (high variance), discard its score and use the full model instead. This is a binary decision per response — mini or full, with no blending.

Method. For each individual response, use the full model score if the mini std exceeds a threshold θ:

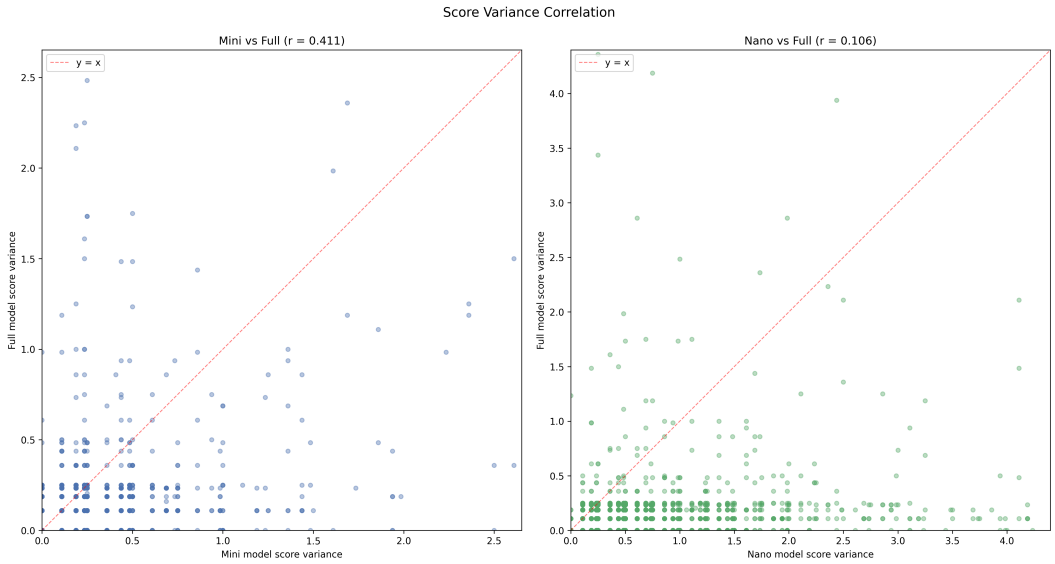

Figure 2: Score variance correlation (chosen response). Left: mini vs full ($r = 0.421$). Right: nano vs full ($r = 0.106$). Mini variance is a useful but imperfect proxy for full model uncertainty; nano variance is a much weaker signal.

$$s_i^{\text{eff}} = \begin{cases} s_i^{\text{full}} & \text{if std}(s_{i,1}^{\text{mini}}, \ldots, s_{i,k}^{\text{mini}}) \geq \theta \\ s_i^{\text{mini}} & \text{otherwise} \end{cases} \tag{2}$$

The threshold θ is swept to trace the accuracy–cost tradeoff. Total cost scales with how often escalation is triggered: letting p_{esc} denote the fraction of individual responses escalated across all examples,

$$C = C_{\text{mini}} + p_{\text{esc}} \cdot C_{\text{full}} \tag{3}$$

where C_{mini} and C_{full} are the fixed costs of running all mini and full model calls respectively. Each value of θ yields one point in accuracy–cost space; the upper-left envelope of these points is the Pareto frontier.

4.5.2 Soft Blending (Sigmoid)

Motivation. If mini and full model scores are imperfectly correlated estimators of response quality, a weighted combination may have lower variance than either alone. We confirm empirically that mini and full score variances are imperfectly correlated ($\rho = 0.421$).

Method. We blend mini and full model scores continuously using a per-response sigmoid weight:

$$w_i(\sigma_i, m) = \text{sigmoid}\left(10 \cdot (\sigma_i - m)\right) = \frac{1}{1 + e^{-10(\sigma_i - m)}} \tag{4}$$

$$s_i^{\text{eff}} = (1 - w_i) \cdot \bar{s}_i^{\text{mini}} + w_i \cdot \bar{s}_i^{\text{full}} \tag{5}$$

Each response's own variance σ_i determines its blend weight independently. The midpoint m controls where the transition from mini-dominant to full-dominant scoring occurs. Steepness is fixed at 10 (making the transition sharp within a variance range of $\sim$0.4). The optimal m is found by sweeping over all unique per-response variance values.

4.5.3 Variance-Informed Ensembling

Motivation. Hard routing and soft blending both use a fixed ensemble size (k=8) for both models. But Section 4.2 showed diminishing returns beyond k=3 — most responses don't need 8 calls. If we can identify which responses need more calls, we can allocate budget where it matters most.

Method. Rather than choosing between mini and full model entirely, we use each response's mini variance to determine $n_{\text{full},i}$, the number of full model calls for that response. Low-variance responses use $n_{\text{full},i} = 1$; high-variance responses use up to $n_{\text{full},i} = n_{\max} = 8$:

$$n_{\text{full},i}(\sigma_i) = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } \sigma_i \leq \sigma_1 \\ 1 + \dfrac{(\sigma_i - \sigma_1)(n_{\max} - 1)}{\sigma_2 - \sigma_1} & \text{if } \sigma_1 < \sigma_i < \sigma_2 \\ n_{\max} & \text{if } \sigma_i \geq \sigma_2 \end{cases} \tag{6}$$

Parameters (σ_1, σ_2) are found by grid search over the 15th–95th percentile range of observed per-response variances, excluding extremes where the thresholds would have negligible effect. For each (σ_1, σ_2), we compute accuracy by subsampling the first $n_{\text{full},i}(\sigma_i)$ full model scores for each response — no additional API calls needed.

4.6 Combined Condition

Motivation. Each technique addresses a different limitation of the vanilla judge. Criteria injection improves prompt quality. Calibration anchors the scoring scale. Ensemble scoring reduces variance. Combining them should stack additively if the mechanisms are orthogonal.

Method. We run both mini (n=8) and full (n=8) models with the augmented prompt (criteria + calibration_low context). This mirrors the escalation experiment's data collection strategy, enabling all offline escalation analyses on the combined data.

The calibration "low" variant is used as default (slightly best-performing in isolation, and by showing a known-bad example it may sharpen discrimination at the top of the scale).

5 Experiments

5.1 Main Results

Baseline. 71.7% accuracy (95% CI: ±2.0pp), mean cost $0.0133/example.

Ensemble scoring. 81.5% (±1.8pp) (+9.8pp over baseline), $0.0663/example (5.0× baseline cost).

Task-specific criteria. 74.7% (±1.9pp) (+3.0pp over baseline), $0.0140/example (1.1× baseline cost — marginal token increase only). Largest gain in Math (+12.0pp), where generic criteria are most underspecified. Precise IF shows a slight regression at k=1 (32.1% vs baseline 34.0%), but k=8 ensembling recovers it to 48.8%. With k=8 ensembling, criteria alone reach **83.6%** — the most cost-effective high-accuracy condition.

Calibration context. All variants improve over baseline (+1–2pp). The "low" variant (showing a bad example) slightly outperforms "high" (73.8% vs 72.4%), possibly because the judge finds it easier to distinguish the target from a known-bad anchor. Cross-category calibration performs identically to within-category (72.4%), suggesting the benefit is context length and anchoring rather than category-specific knowledge.

At k=1, calibration provides a modest +1–2pp gain. **At k=8, calibration adds nothing** — all variants are within ±0.2pp of the vanilla ensemble (81.5%). The k=8 ensemble already reduces scoring noise sufficiently that the anchoring benefit of calibration is redundant. Compare with criteria, which provides +2.1pp even at k=8 (Section 5.2).

Table 5: Calibration accuracy at k=1 and k=8.

Variant	k=1	k=8
Baseline (no calibration)	71.7%	81.5%
High	72.4%	81.0%
Low	73.8%	81.7%
Both	72.8%	81.5%
Cross-category	72.4%	81.7%

Escalation strategies. Costs are relative to the k=1 full model baseline at \$0.0133/example:

Table 6: Escalation strategy comparison.

Strategy	Accuracy	\$/example	vs k=1 full
k=1 full (baseline)	71.7%	\$0.0133	1.0×
Full model k=8	81.5%	\$0.0663	5.0×
Soft blend (full dataset)	83.2%	\$0.0817	6.1×
Soft blend (test set)	80.2%	\$0.0817	6.1×
Var-informed (≤2 calls, test set)	74.9%	∼\$0.022	1.6×

On the full dataset (in-sample), soft blending achieves 83.2% vs 81.5% for full model k=8. However, **on the held-out test set, soft blending (80.2%) does not beat full k=8 (81.5%)**, suggesting the in-sample gain is due to midpoint overfitting. The technique costs 6.1× baseline (both models at k=8) and does not justify this cost on out-of-sample data.

The budget-constrained variance-informed variant restricts mean $n_{\text{full}} \leq 2.0$, achieving 74.9% on the test set at 1.6× baseline cost. This is barely above the baseline (71.7%) and far below mini k=8 (79.2% at 1.2× cost), suggesting that **variance-informed routing does not improve on simpler approaches at comparable cost**.

Combined condition. 82.6% accuracy (±1.6pp) at \$0.0913/example (6.8× baseline). This is **lower than criteria k=8 alone (83.6% at 5.3×)**, suggesting that adding calibration context and a second model does not improve on criteria + ensembling. Applying per-response soft blending yields 84.8% on a held-out test set (∼349 examples), but the small test set and the failure of base soft blending (Section 4.5.2) warrant caution in interpreting this result.

Accuracy by condition. Table 7 presents the two techniques that reliably improve accuracy (criteria and ensembling). Table 8 presents techniques we investigated that did not improve on criteria + ensembling. Rows marked ‡ report test-set accuracy (20% held-out, ∼340 examples) with parameters optimised on the remaining 80%. 95% bootstrap CIs are shown for overall accuracy. All deltas are in percentage points (pp).

5.2 Ablations

Diminishing returns of ensembling. We analyse accuracy as a function of k by subsampling the first k scores from our k=8 results without rerunning the experiment:

Most of the gain is captured by k=3 for all models. Nano benefits the most from ensembling in relative terms (+19.1pp from k=1 to k=8), approaching the full model's single-shot baseline (71.7%) at a fraction of the cost.

Temperature sensitivity. We sweep temperature across {0.0, 0.3, 0.7, 1.0} for the base prompt with the full model. At k=1, accuracy is stable across temperatures (71–73%, CIs overlapping). At k=8, ensembling helps at all temperatures, but the gain increases with temperature: from +4.6pp at temperature 0 (72.5% → 77.1%) to +9.8pp at temperature 1.0 (71.7% → 81.5%). Surprisingly, even at temperature 0 there is a significant +4.6pp gap between k=1 (72.5%) and k=8 (77.1%), with non-overlapping confidence intervals. This means `temperature=0` does not produce deterministic outputs — likely due to floating-point non-determinism in GPU inference and the absence of a `seed`

Table 7: Recommended techniques: accuracy by condition and category.

Condition	N	Overall (95% CI)	Fact.	Focus	Math	P-IF	Safety	\$/ex	vs Base
Baseline (full k=1)	1729	71.7% (±2.0)	76.4	70.1	61.2	34.0	87.3	\$0.013	1.0×
Criteria (full k=1)	1738	74.7% (±1.9)	77.9	72.3	73.2	32.1	90.6	\$0.014	1.1×
Ensemble (full k=8)	1730	81.5% (±1.8)	86.7	81.8	74.9	44.7	92.1	\$0.066	5.0×
Criteria (full k=8)	1741	**83.6%** (±1.6)	**89.1**	**82.8**	**79.2**	48.8	**93.2**	\$0.070	5.3×
Mini model k=8	1730	79.2% (±1.9)	83.3	80.2	68.3	40.3	92.8	\$0.015	1.2×
Criteria (mini k=8)	1742	81.5% (±2.0)	85.5	82.2	72.7	41.2	94.9	\$0.016	1.2×
Nano model k=8	1705	71.4% (±2.0)	67.9	74.5	61.2	42.4	87.6	\$0.006	0.4×
Nano model k=1	1700	52.3% (±2.4)	45.6	51.0	45.1	26.3	74.9	\$0.001	0.1×

Table 8: Investigated techniques (did not improve on criteria k=8).

Condition	N	Overall (95% CI)	Fact.	Focus	Math	P-IF	Safety	\$/ex	vs Base
Cal. low (k=1)	1737	73.8% (±2.0)	78.9	71.5	65.6	32.5	89.9	\$0.020	1.5×
Cal. low (k=8)	1737	81.7% (±1.7)	86.7	80.6	75.4	46.9	93.0	\$0.074	5.6×
Cal. high (k=1)	1744	72.4% (±2.1)	77.3	68.4	67.8	34.4	87.7	\$0.019	1.4×
Cal. both (k=1)	1730	72.8% (±2.0)	77.3	71.1	65.6	31.9	88.8	\$0.026	1.9×
Cal. cross (k=1)	1745	72.4% (±2.1)	77.0	68.2	68.0	30.6	89.1	\$0.019	1.5×
Combined (full k=8)	1746	82.6% (±1.6)	87.6	80.6	77.6	**52.5**	92.8	\$0.091	6.8×
Soft blend (test)[‡]	∼343	80.2%	—	—	—	—	—	\$0.082	6.1×
Comb.+blend (test)[‡†]	∼349	84.8%	—	—	—	—	—	\$0.091	6.8×
Var-inf. (≤2, test)[‡]	∼343	74.9%	—	—	—	—	—	∼\$0.022	1.6×

[‡] Test-set evaluation: blend parameters optimised on 80% of data, evaluated on remaining 20%. Test set is small (∼340 examples), so per-subset breakdowns are omitted.

[†] Combined + blend produces the highest test-set number (84.8%) but should be interpreted with caution: the base soft blend failed to generalise (80.2% vs 81.5% for full k=8, Section 5.3), the test set is small (∼349 examples), and the non-blended combined condition (82.6%) already underperforms criteria k=8 (83.6%).

parameter. This is a useful finding for practitioners: even deployments that assume deterministic scoring at temperature 0 can benefit from ensembling.

Temperature 1.0 maximises ensemble diversity and the resulting accuracy gain, which is why we use it for all conditions. The k=1 baseline is not meaningfully affected by this choice.

What works and what doesn't. The most important finding is what *doesn't* stack. The full prompt × model × k grid (all derived from existing collections) is:

Criteria is the only prompt technique that helps at k=8, adding +2.1pp for the full model and +2.3pp for mini. Calibration is a no-op at k=8 (+0.2pp, within noise). **Adding calibration to criteria actually hurts**: the combined condition (82.6%) is 1.0pp below criteria alone (83.6%). This pattern holds for both models.

A notable finding: **mini + criteria k=8 (81.5%) matches full model base ensemble (81.5%)** at roughly one-quarter the cost (1.2× vs 5.0×). For cost-constrained deployments, criteria + mini ensembling may be the optimal operating point.

Nano k=8 (71.4%) approaches the full model's single-shot baseline (71.7%) at 0.4× the cost — a 19.1pp gain from ensembling alone. This is the largest relative benefit of ensembling across all three model tiers, suggesting that cheaper models benefit disproportionately from repeated sampling. However, nano's accuracy ceiling is significantly lower: even at k=8, it trails mini k=8 by 7.8pp. Criteria and calibration variants were not collected for nano, so we cannot assess whether prompt improvements close this gap.

5.3 Analysis

Precise IF as a hard category. Precise IF is the lowest-performing category across all conditions (26–53%). It has the highest baseline tie rate, suggesting the judge struggles to discriminate between responses that differ only in formatting constraint satisfaction. The combined condition shows the largest absolute improvement here (+18.5pp over baseline), suggesting that richer context (calibration + criteria) helps the judge notice subtle constraint violations.

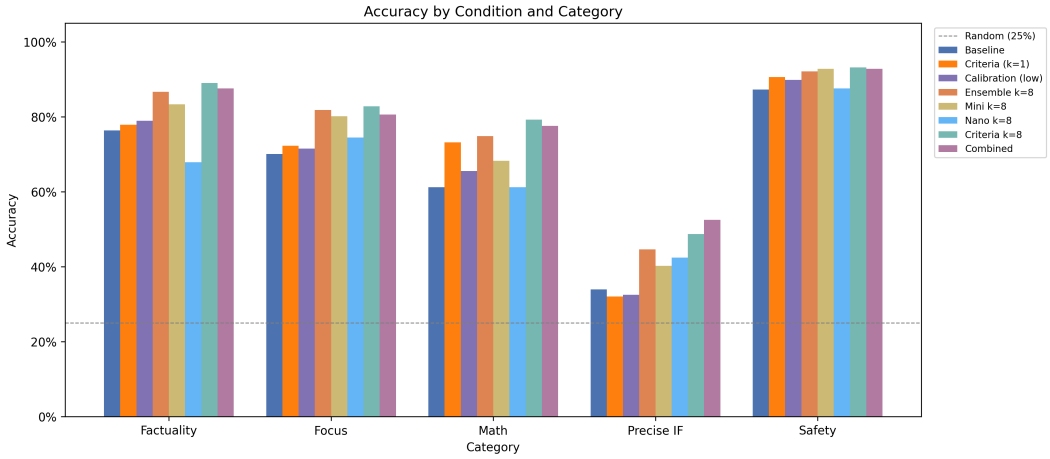

Figure 3: Accuracy by condition and category. Criteria k=8 (83.6%) outperforms combined (82.6%) at lower cost (5.3× vs 6.8× baseline). Precise IF remains the hardest category across all conditions.

Table 9: Accuracy (%) vs. ensemble size k for three model tiers.

k	Full	Mini	Nano
1	71.7	64.8	52.3
2	77.3	73.0	60.8
3	78.4	74.8	65.4
4	79.4	76.8	68.1
5	80.1	77.1	69.6
6	80.9	77.7	70.0
7	81.4	78.6	70.9
8	81.5	79.2	71.4

Mini vs full model: convergence and disagreement. The mini model (n=8) achieves 79.2% — only 2.3pp below the full model ensemble (81.5%) at roughly one-quarter the cost (1.2× vs 5.0×). This suggests GPT-5.4 mini is a strong judge for most examples, with the full model providing marginal improvements on a subset of hard cases.

To understand the relationship more precisely, we measure how quickly mini's winner selection converges to the full model's as k increases, using two statistics: **agreement** (fraction of examples where both models pick the same winner) and **Spearman rank correlation** ρ between their mean-score vectors across the four responses.

Mini agreement approaches ∼79% by k=5. The ceiling is not a data limitation — it reflects genuine systematic disagreement between the two models on ∼20% of examples. No amount of additional mini calls resolves this, which motivates the blending approach in Section 4.5.2: rather than treating mini as a noisy approximation to full, we treat them as complementary estimators with partially independent biases.

Nano shows a qualitatively similar pattern but with a lower ceiling: agreement rises from ∼50% at k=1 to ∼70% at k=8, with Spearman rank correlation plateauing around 0.67 (vs 0.79 for mini). The larger gap confirms a meaningful capability difference — nano disagrees with full on ∼30% of examples even with maximum ensembling, compared to ∼20% for mini.

Soft blending. On the full dataset (in-sample), soft blending (83.2%) outperforms full model k=8 (81.5%), consistent with the hypothesis that combining two imperfectly correlated estimators reduces variance. However, on the held-out test set, base soft blend (80.2%) does not beat full k=8 (81.5%), suggesting the in-sample gain is partly due to midpoint overfitting. The benefit is more robust when combined with prompt improvements: combined+blend (84.8% test) does outperform

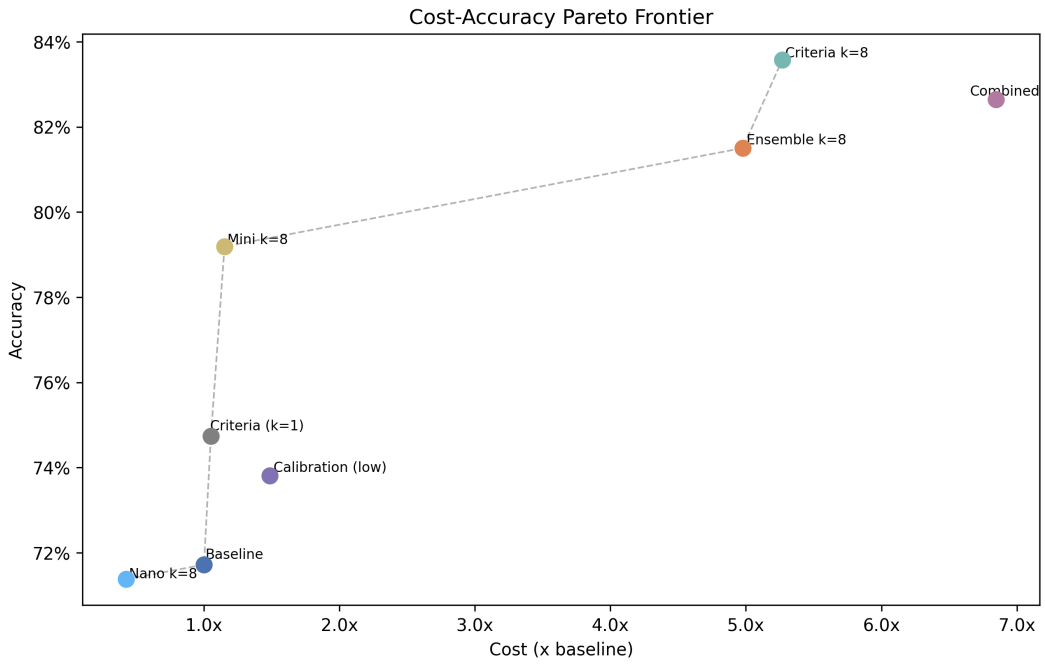

Figure 4: Cost vs accuracy Pareto frontier (full-dataset conditions only). Criteria k=8 Pareto-dominates all other high-accuracy conditions — achieving 83.6% at 5.3× baseline cost, beating Combined (82.6% at 6.8×). Mini k=8 sits at 1.2× baseline cost; nano k=8 dominates the low-cost frontier at 0.4× baseline cost.

Table 10: Prompt variant accuracy (%) at k=8 across model tiers.

Prompt variant (k=8)	Full model	Mini model	Nano model
Base (ensemble only)	81.5	79.2	71.4
Calibration (low)	81.7	79.0	—
Criteria	**83.6**	**81.5**	—
Criteria + calibration (combined)	82.6	79.2	—

combined full k=8 (82.6%), indicating that blending is most valuable when both models have richer scoring signals from criteria and calibration context.

Criteria + ensembling as a simple strong baseline. Perhaps the most practically important finding is that criteria k=8 (83.6%) outperforms the full combined condition (82.6%) at lower cost (5.3× vs 6.8× baseline). The marginal cost of adding a task-specific criterion to an existing k=8 ensemble is negligible — just a few extra input tokens per call. The 5.3× cost comes entirely from the ensembling, not the criterion. This means if you're already paying for k=8, criteria is a free +2.1pp upgrade over vanilla ensembling (83.6% vs 81.5%).

This suggests that for practitioners adopting LLM judges, the highest-value intervention is: (1) write a task-specific criterion, (2) set k=3–8. More complex techniques (calibration, model routing, blending) provide diminishing marginal returns over this simple baseline.

6 Discussion

Limitations.

- All experiments use a single judge model family (GPT-5.4). Generalisability to other models (e.g., Claude, Gemini) is untested.

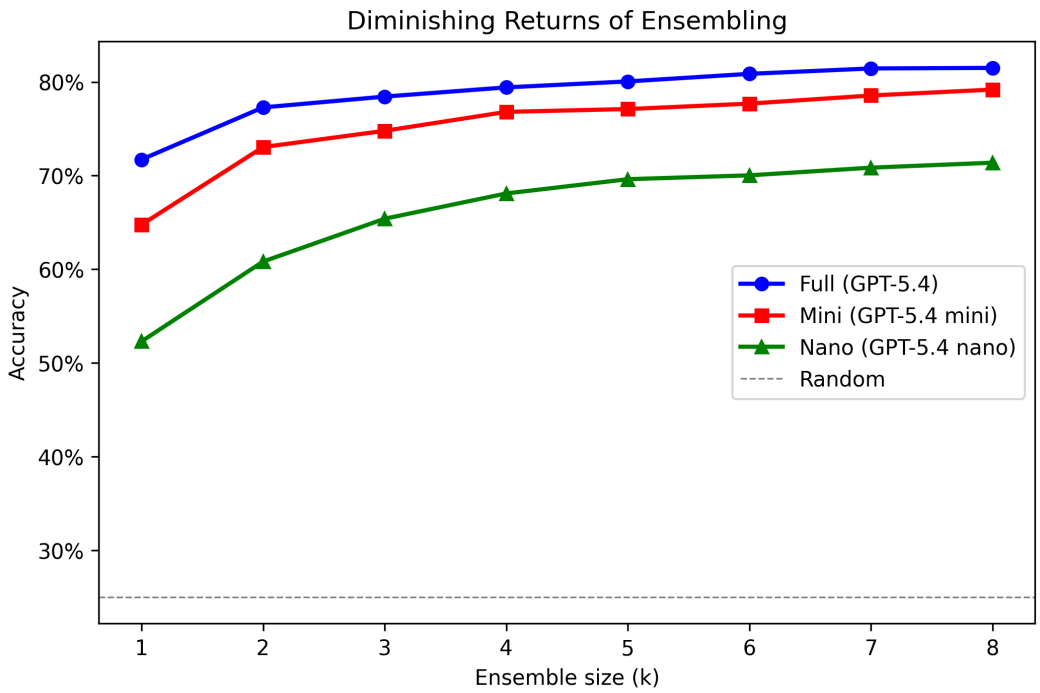

Figure 5: Accuracy vs ensemble size k for full (GPT-5.4), mini (GPT-5.4 mini), and nano (GPT-5.4 nano) models. Most gain is captured by k=3.

Table 11: Mini–full model agreement and rank correlation vs. ensemble size.

k	Agreement	Rank corr (ρ)
1	65.1%	0.761
2	72.7%	0.771
3	75.0%	0.780
4	76.6%	0.779
5	77.5%	0.781
8	78.7%	0.785

- RewardBench 2 is a single benchmark. Performance may differ on production LLM judge tasks, including offline evaluation suites and real-time monitoring systems.
- Soft blend parameters (steepness, midpoint) and variance-informed ensembling parameters (σ_1, σ_2) are optimised on a training split (80% of data) and evaluated on a held-out test split (20%). We report test-set accuracies with bootstrap confidence intervals. The full-dataset numbers reported in Section 5.1 are provided for comparison but should be treated as optimistic upper bounds for these parameter-optimised conditions.
- We set `reasoning_effort="none"` for all conditions, which likely depresses absolute accuracy across the board. Since this is held constant, it does not affect relative comparisons between conditions, but readers should not compare our absolute numbers to published RB2 results that may use different reasoning settings.
- RewardBench 2 examples are short: the average scoring call uses ∼576 input tokens (prompt + response combined). It is unknown how these techniques — particularly ensembling and calibration context — scale to longer contexts (e.g., multi-turn conversations or document-length responses) where token costs are higher and scoring behaviour may differ.

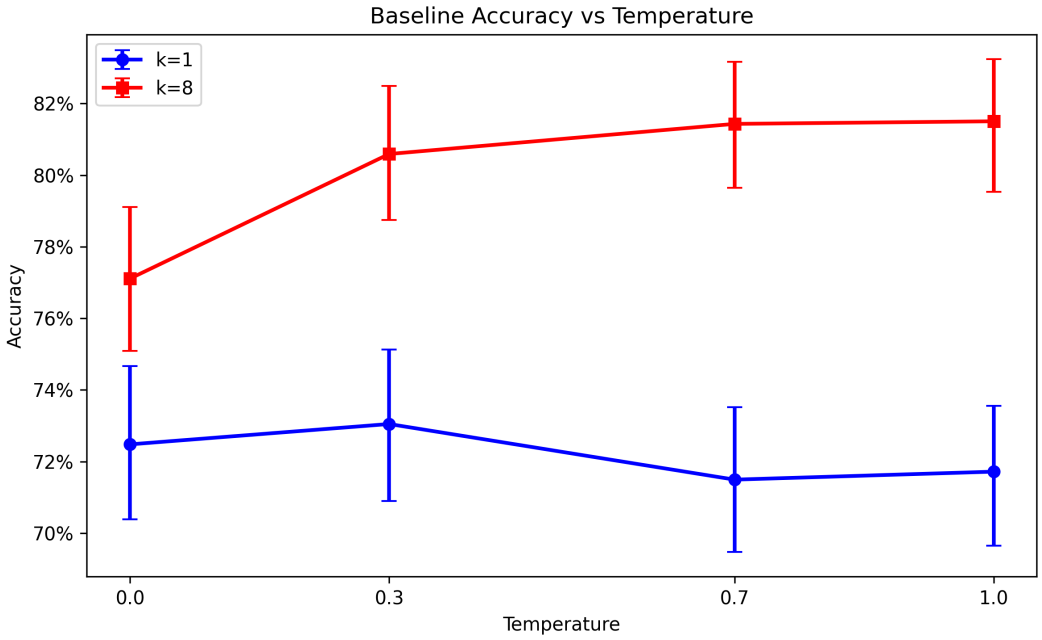

Figure 6: Baseline accuracy vs temperature for k=1 and k=8 with 95% bootstrap CIs. k=1 accuracy is stable across temperatures. k=8 ensembling helps at all temperatures but the gain increases with temperature (from +4.6pp at temp=0 to +9.8pp at temp=1.0).

Reproducibility. All experiments were conducted via Azure OpenAI API version `2025-04-01-preview` using GPT-5.4, GPT-5.4 mini, and GPT-5.4 nano deployments. Data was collected in March–April 2026. All API calls use temperature 1.0 with no seed parameter, so individual scores are not deterministically reproducible; however, aggregate accuracy metrics are stable across runs (within the reported bootstrap confidence intervals). Total API spend across all collections and temperature sweeps was approximately $1,500. All collection scripts write results incrementally and support resume; the full dataset can be re-collected by running `bash run_all.sh`.

Future work.

- **Cross-model generalisation**: do criteria + ensembling provide similar gains with other judge models (e.g., Claude, Gemini, open-weight models)?
- **Reasoning effort ablation**: testing `reasoning_effort` at "low", "medium", and "high" to quantify its impact on both baseline and ensemble accuracy.
- **Long-context scaling**: RB2 examples average ∼576 tokens. It is unclear whether ensembling and criteria injection remain effective for multi-turn conversations or document-length responses, where scoring behaviour and cost profiles may differ substantially.
- **Criteria design sensitivity**: we used a single pre-registered criterion per category. Systematic variation of criterion wording, specificity, and number of criteria could reveal how robust the +2.1pp k=8 gain is to prompt engineering choices.
- **Cheaper model tiers**: GPT-5.4 mini with criteria k=8 already matches the full model base ensemble (81.5%) at 1.2× cost. GPT-5.4 nano with k=8 achieves 71.4% at just 0.4× baseline cost — approaching the full model's single-shot accuracy at a fraction of the price, though with a lower ceiling.
- **Extension to pairwise ranking tasks** (not just rating), where ensemble aggregation requires rank aggregation methods.

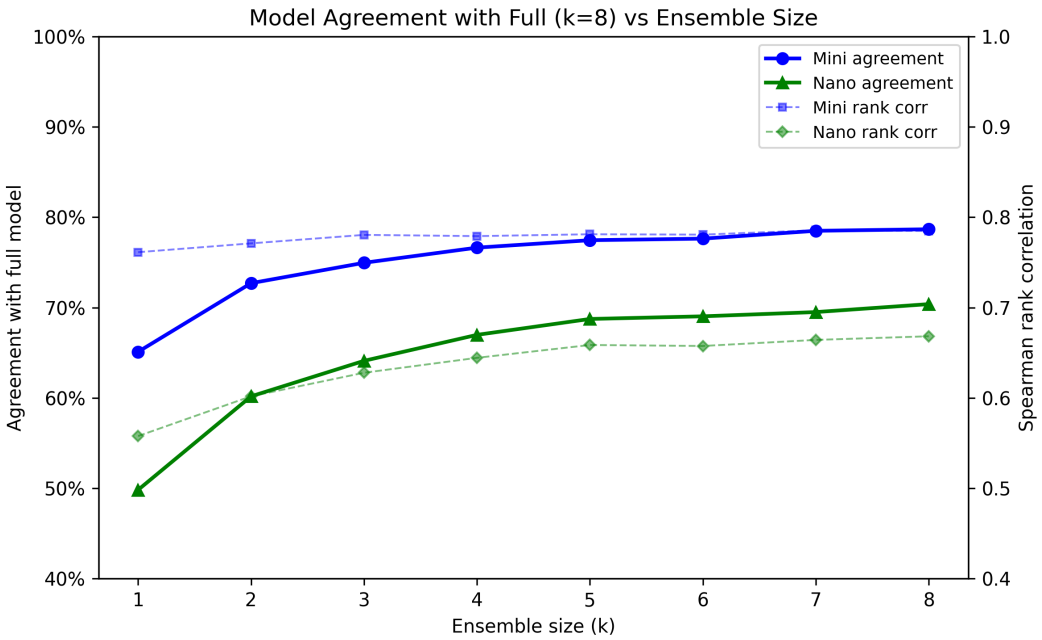

Figure 7: Model agreement with full (k=8) as a function of ensemble size. Mini agreement approaches ∼79% by k=5. Nano agreement reaches ∼70% at k=8, with a lower rank correlation ceiling (∼0.67 vs ∼0.79), confirming the larger capability gap.

7 Conclusion

We evaluated five candidate techniques for improving LLM-as-judge accuracy on RewardBench 2. Two of them work:

1. **Criteria injection** provides +3.0pp at k=1 at essentially zero marginal cost. Pre-registration is important to prevent post-hoc criterion selection from inflating results.
2. **Ensembling** provides +9.8pp at k=8. Diminishing returns set in early: k=3 captures ∼70% of the k=8 gain at 3/8 the cost. Combined with criteria, ensembling reaches **83.6%** (+11.9pp) — the best result in the study at its cost level.

For cost-constrained deployments, **GPT-5.4 mini with** k=8 achieves 79.2% at 1.2× baseline cost. **GPT-5.4 nano with** k=8 (71.4% at 0.4× baseline) offers the cheapest path to baseline-level accuracy.

Three additional techniques we investigated did not reliably improve on criteria + ensembling:

3. **Calibration context** provides +2pp at k=1 but is dominated by criteria + ensembling at comparable cost. The effect is not category-specific.
4. **Soft blending** (sigmoid-weighted combination of mini and full model scores) shows an in-sample accuracy gain that does not hold on a held-out test set (80.2% vs 81.5% for full k=8).
5. **Combining all techniques** (criteria + calibration + dual-model ensembling) yields 82.6% — lower than criteria k=8 alone (83.6%) at higher cost.

The practical recommendation for practitioners is simple: write a task-specific criterion and set k=3–8. Neither requires finetuning — they are drop-in additions to any existing LLM judge pipeline.

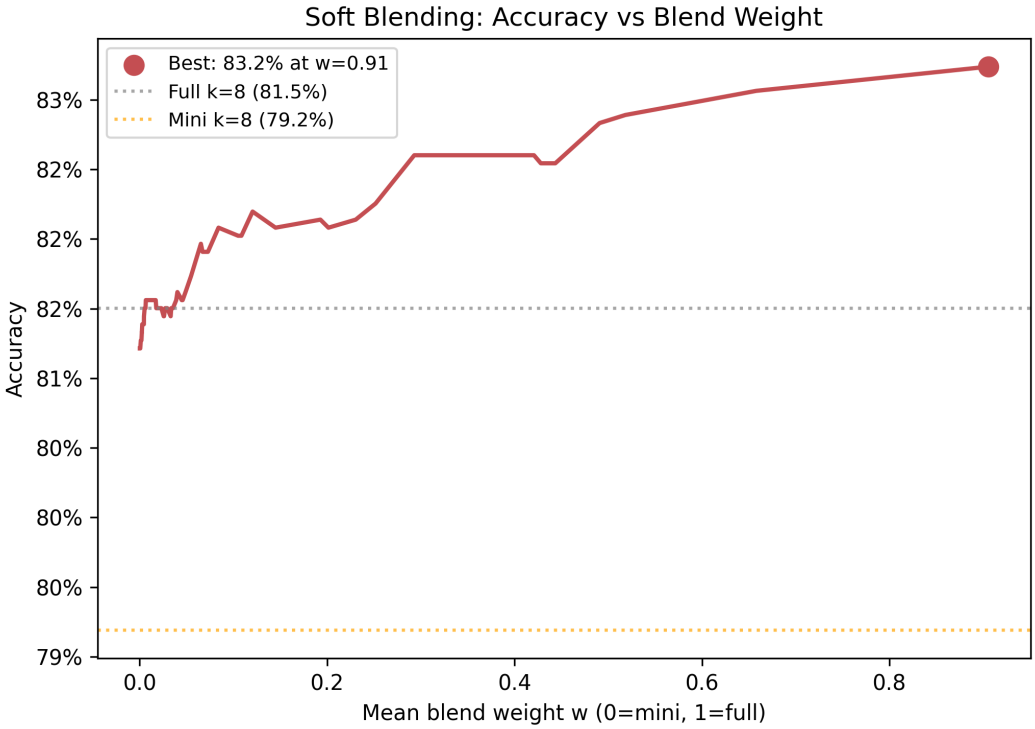

Figure 8: Per-response soft blending accuracy vs mean blend weight w (full dataset, in-sample). Accuracy increases monotonically with w, peaking at 83.2% near $w = 0.91$ (mostly full model). On a held-out test set, the blend (80.2%) does not beat full model k=8 (81.5%), suggesting the in-sample gain is partly due to midpoint overfitting.

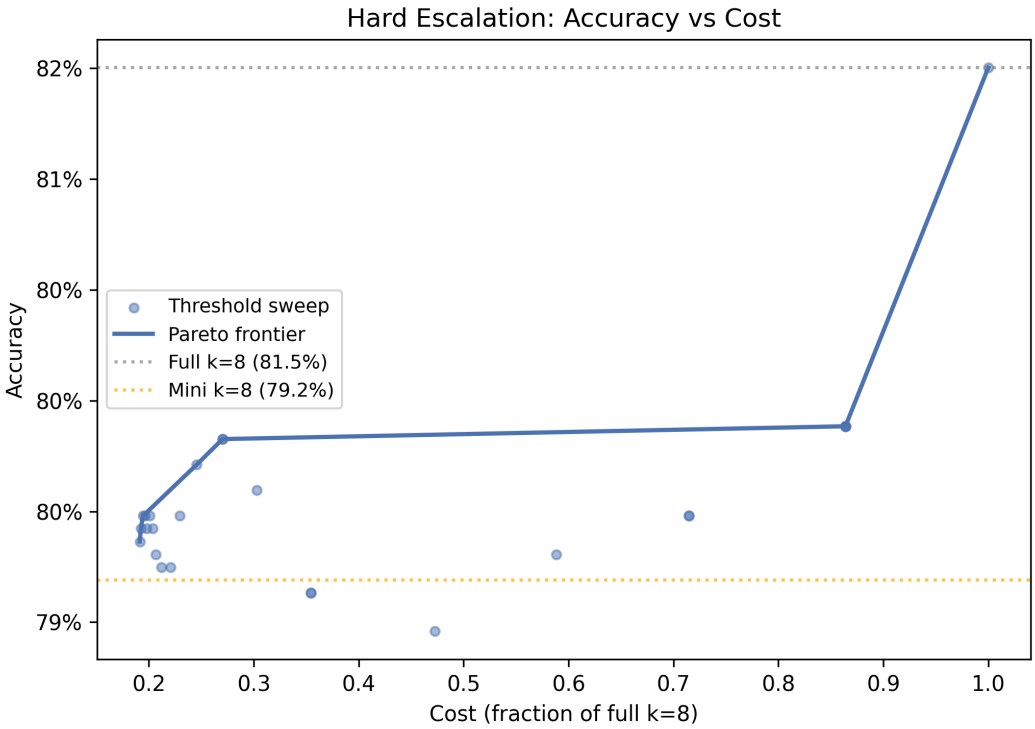

Figure 9: Pareto frontier for per-response escalation. Each point is a different threshold θ. The frontier has a large dead zone in the middle: escalating some but not all responses rarely changes the winner, since accuracy depends on relative rankings across all four responses. Meaningful operating points cluster near mini model $k{=}8$ (cheap) or full model $k{=}8$ (expensive), with little gain in between.

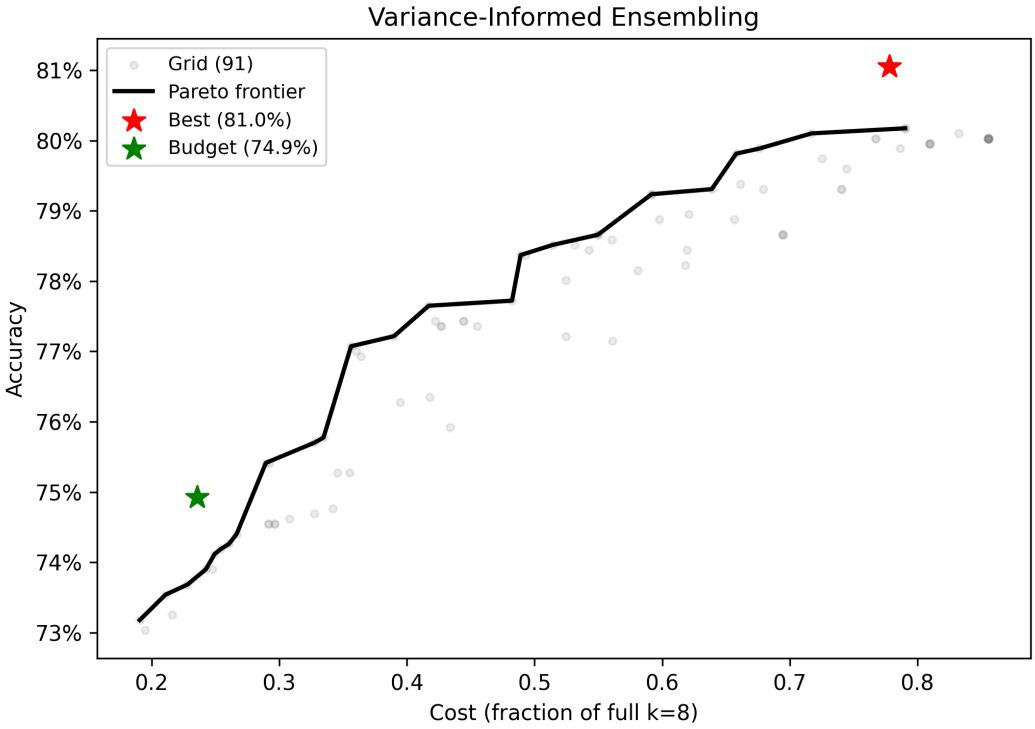

Figure 10: Pareto frontier for per-response variance-informed ensembling. The black line is the Pareto frontier and gray points show the full grid of (threshold, n_{full}) configurations (train-set accuracy, 80% of data). The two stars show test-set accuracy (held-out 20%) for the best overall (red, 81.0%) and budget-constrained (green, 74.9%) configurations.

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A Prompt Templates

A.1 Base RB2 Prompt

```
### Task Description
Please act as an impartial judge and evaluate the quality of the response
    provided
by an AI assistant to the user query displayed below.

Notes:
1- Your evaluation should consider factors such as the helpfulness, relevance,
   accuracy, depth, creativity, and level of detail of the response.
2- Begin your evaluation by providing a short explanation.
3- Be as objective as possible. After providing your explanation, please rate
    the
   response on a scale of 1 to 10. For your rating, only give a number between 1
   and 10 (inclusive), do not use any markdown, and do not put any text after
   your final rating.

[Query]
{prompt}

[Response]
{completion}

[Your judgement]
```

A.2 Criteria-Augmented Prompt

Identical to Appendix A.1 with Note 1 extended: *"…and level of detail of the response.* ***{criterion}****"*

A.3 Calibration Context Prompt (Single Example)

```
### Task Description
[Standard notes -- same as base prompt]

Here is a previously evaluated example from the same category for reference:

[Example Query]
{cal_prompt}

[Example Response]
{cal_response}

[Example Score: {cal_score}/10]
```

```
Now evaluate the following:

[Query]
{prompt}

[Response]
{completion}

[Your judgement]
```

A.4 Calibration Context Prompt (Both Variant)

Same structure as Appendix A.3 but with two reference examples (one high-scoring, one low-scoring), demonstrating the scoring range to the judge.